

The Pleistocene-Holocene Transition in Tagua-Tagua, central Chile

Matías Frugone-Álvarez^{*,a}, Erwin Gonzáles Huerta^{c,1,e}, Blas Valero-Garcés^d,
Carolina Godoy^{c,1,e}, Josu Aranbarri^{c,1,e}, Penélope Gonzáles^f, Antonio
Delgado-Huerta^{c,1,e}, Claudio Latorre¹, Rafael Labarca Encina^{c,1,e}

^a*Pontificia Universidad Católica de Chile, Departamento de Ecología-Centro UC Desierto de
Atacama, Av. Libertador Bernardo O'Higgins 340, Santiago, Chile.*

^b*Instituto de Ecología y Biodiversidad (IEB), Santiago, Chile*

^c*Instituto Pirenaico de Ecología (IPE-CSIC), Zaragoza, Spain.*

^d*Centro de Investigación en Biodiversidad y Ambientes Sustentables (CIBAS), Chile*

^e*Department of Geology and Environmental Science, University of Pittsburgh, Pittsburgh,
USA*

^f*Instituto Andaluz de Ciencias de la Tierra (CSIC-UGR), Granada, Spain*

Abstract

Paleohydrological reconstructions from the Chilean Altiplano document abrupt moisture fluctuations during the last millennia. Although the end of the mid Holocene aridity and the onset of more humid conditions between 6–4 ka has been identified in numerous regional marine and terrestrial sites, the timing of late Holocene dry and humid phases shows large regional variability. Laguna Miscanti and Laguna Miñiques (23° 43'S – 67° 46'W, 4140 m asl) are topographically closed, but connected by surface outflow from Miscanti. Sedimentological and geochemical indicators from two new cores show large facies changes, i.e. higher carbonate and evaporite deposition during more arid periods and increased organic productivity (both algal and macrophyte) during more humid phases. As in most Andean lakes located in volcanic settings, large 14C reservoir effects occur complicating 14C dating, so the age models include 210Pb and U/Th dating. In spite of dating uncertainties, both lakes show similar patterns during the last millennium. A humid phase in Laguna Miscanti prior to ca 1200 CE is coherent with rodent middens and geomorphological features indicative of a major pluvial/recharge event at lower altitudes (Atacama Desert) during the Medieval Climate Anomaly (ca 800 - 1300 CE). The LIA (1300 – 1850 CE) is characterized by several arid/humid cycles and the last century by a productivity increase. The hydrological changes observed during the last millennium illustrate the complex dynamics of recent climate evolution over the high altitude Andean plateau. Discrepancies between the northern and southern Altiplano records and with intermediate latitudes (Central Chile) records may reflect contrasting responses to external forcing (Westerlies versus South American Monsoon dynamics) along different climatic zones.

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*Corresponding Author

Email address: matutefrugone@gmail.com (Matías Frugone-Álvarez)

16 1. Introduction

17 2. Study site and regional setting

18 3. Materials and methods

19 3.1. Sedimentological facies and elemental geochemistry

20 In November 2019, we recovered a sedimentary sequence (~2.8 m deep) in an
21 area of 15 x 10 cm following the archaeological strata of the profile exposed on
22 the western wall of a 1x2 m excavation in the ALTT (Tagua-Tagua 3, Figure 1).
23 Sedimentary facies were defined and characterized based on macroscopic descrip-
24 tion (color, bedding features, grain size, lithology and sedimentary textures).
25 Sediment samples —between 5 to 10 g of material— were obtained at 1-cm
26 intervals. Samples were sent to the laboratories of Pyrenees Ecology Institute
27 (IPE-CSIC) and the Andalusian Institute Earth Sciences Institute (IACT-CSIC)
28 in Spain for geochemical, pollen and isotopic analysis. Other samples group were
29 sent to the Archaeobotany and Palaeoecology Laboratory of the University of
30 Exeter for the processing and extraction of diatom and phytolith.

31 Subsamples were taken every 2 cm for analysed of total carbon (TC), total
32 inorganic carbon (TIC), total organic carbon ($TOC = T - TIC$), total nitrogen
33 (TN) and total sulfur (TS) in a LECO SCN furnace (IPE-CSIC). The grain-
34 size frequency distributions (between 0.02 μm and 2000 μm) were measured in
35 triplicate using a Malvern Mastersizer 2000 APA2000 grain-size analyzer with
36 Hydro 2000G AWA2000. To determine the grain-size, the samples were pre-
37 treated with 10% H_2O_2 and 10% HCl to remove organic matter and carbonates,
38 respectively. Robust End-member mixing analysis (EMMA) was performed
39 using the generic deterministic EMMA protocol slightly modified (R package
40 EMMAgeo, version: 0.9.8. Dietze et al 2012; Dietze and Dietze 2019) to infer
41 the sediment sources, transport and depositional processes.

42 3.2. Diatoms analysis

43 Approximately 1 g of dry sediment every 2 cm were processed following the
44 Queen’s University methods. Clastic sediments were removed using a sodium
45 polytungstate treatment. Permanent slides were prepared with Naphrax (Bat-
46 tarbee et al., 2002). Diatoms were identified and quantified under a trinocula
47 Carl Zeiss microscope, AxioLab A1, with an oil immersion objective 1000x.
48 Quantitative analyses were done by calculating relative abundances by counting
49 approximately 200 valves (up to 900 valves were counted in some levels down to
50 30 when diatoms were scarce) in continuous transects encompassing the whole
51 slide. Diatoms were classified to species or variety level. Optical microscopy
52 images (1000x) were taken using a digital SLR camera (Canon EOS Rebel)
53 attached to microscope. The nomenclature status of species or variety was
54 verified using the Catalogue of Diatom Names (California Academy of Sciences).
55 Diatoms were grouped according to life forms and ecological characteristics.
56 Data were analyzed and plotted using ‘tidypaleo’ version 0.1.1 packets in R 4.1.0
57 software.

58 *3.3. Pollen Analysis and Macrocarbon analysis*

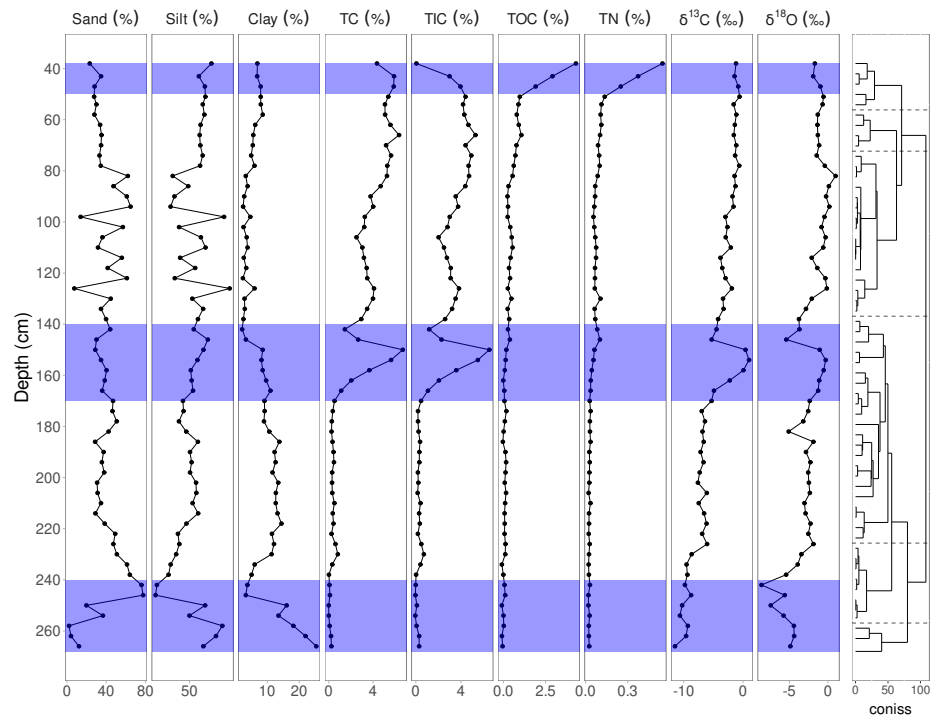
59 Eleven pollen samples were obtained from short core VIC11-2A-1G and
60 processed following Faegri and Iversen (1989) methods to extract pollen grains.
61 Lycopodium tablets were added for calculating pollen concentration (grains/cm³;
62 Stockmarr(1971)) and accumulation rates (grains/cm²/yr). Pollen grains were
63 mounted on glass slides and identified and quantified under an Axiostar Carl
64 Zeiss microscope (400x and 1000x) using published pollen atlas Heusser (1971)
65 and the reference pollen collection of the Paleoecology Laboratory at CEAZA.
66 Pollen counts include 300 terrestrial pollen grains excluding paludal taxa. Data
67 were analyzed and plotted using Tilia software.

68 *3.4. Phytoliths*

69 Phytoliths were obtained from samples of approximately 2 gr of sediment,
70 spaced every 30 cm on the 8 long sediment cores. We followed the standard
71 procedures for phytoliths extraction (Piperno, 1988, 1994, 2006) using 36%
72 HCl and 70% HNO₃ to remove carbonates and organic matter respectively.
73 Phytoliths were separated by heavy liquid flotation using ZnBr₂ prepared to
74 a density of 2.3 g/cm³ (Dickau et al., 2013). Finally, phytoliths were counted
75 until obtaining a total of 200 per sample and they were classified according to
76 the International Code for Phytolith Nomenclature (Madella et al. 2005). The
77 presence of maize leaf phytoliths was studied using the discriminant function
78 of cross-shaped phytoliths (cross variants 1 and 5/6) (Piperno et al., 2006).
79 The percentage of each family or subfamily was plotted and the zones were
80 built through the CONISS method carried out with the Rioja package in the R
81 software (Juggins, 2012). Additionally, a change point analysis was carried out
82 in the sequence of arboreal phytoliths to identify possible significant increases or
83 decreases of this vegetation cover in the studied basin (Bai and Perron, 2003;
84 Killick and Eckley, 2014).

85 *3.5. Chronology*

86 The radiocarbon sample on carbon and bulk sediment were obtained of the
87 profile exposed sampled at 1 cm resolution (Table 1) . The radiocarbon ages
88 were determined by AMS at DirectAMS laboratories, USA. Results are presented
89 in units of percent modern carbon (pMC) and the uncalibrated radiocarbon age
90 before present (BP).



91

92 4. Results

93 4.1. Cores correlations and sedimentary proxies

94 References